Forecasting Demand for National Research Supercomputing

Australian Academy of Science | Australian HPC Demand to 2030

Yusuf Kurnia Romadhon

Table of contents

1 Introduction and Objectives **1**
1.1 Project Background and Forecasting Problem . . . 1
1.2 Project Objectives . . . 1

2 Data Sources and Preparation **2**
2.1 Data Sources and Coverage . . . 2
2.2 Data Integration, Standardisation and Provenance . . . 3
2.3 Variable Definitions and Measurement Units . . . 3
2.4 Compute Resource Conversion . . . 4
2.5 Field of Research Classification Alignment . . . 5

3 Forecasting Methodology **6**
3.1 Forecasting Framework . . . 6
3.2 Forecasting Models . . . 7
3.3 Forecasting Targets and Historical Coverage . . . 8
3.4 Model Evaluation . . . 8
3.5 Model Selection and Sensitivity Analysis . . . 9
3.6 Field of Research Scenario Development . . . 10
3.7 Forecast Horizon and Interpretation . . . 11

4 Results **11**
4.1 Initial Analysis . . . 11
4.2 Forecast Model Evaluation . . . 16
4.3 Demand Forecasts to 2030 . . . 22
4.4 Field of Research Scenarios . . . 27

5 Discussion **31**
5.1 Interpretation of the Main Findings . . . 31
5.2 Implications for National HPC Planning . . . 32
5.3 Limitations and Future Work . . . 33

6 Conclusion **34**

7 References **34**

1 Introduction and Objectives

1.1 Project Background and Forecasting Problem

High-performance computing (HPC) supports research that requires substantial computing resources, including scientific simulations and large-scale data analysis (Australian Academy of Science 2024). In Australia, the National Computational Infrastructure (NCI) and the Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre operate the two national Tier-1 HPC facilities available to researchers (National Computational Infrastructure, n.d.-b; Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre, n.d.-a).

This project was undertaken with the Australian Academy of Science to examine historical research computing demand and forecast national HPC demand through 2030. It uses publicly available records from NCI, Pawsey and the National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme (NCMAS) to analyse requested and allocated computing resources. The results are intended to inform discussions about future national computing infrastructure and public investment (Australian Academy of Science 2026).

Forecasting demand is difficult because allocated computing resources do not necessarily represent what researchers need. Allocation schemes operate within available capacity, so researchers may receive less computing time than they request (National Computational Infrastructure 2014b, 2020b). Requested compute also has limitations, as researchers may restrict their applications based on expected availability or choose not to apply. The analysis therefore distinguishes requested compute, allocated compute and the gap between them, while recognising that underlying demand cannot be measured directly from these records (Australian Academy of Science 2026).

Historical comparisons are further affected by changes in computing systems, reporting practices and service-unit accounting. CPU and GPU resources are measured differently, while revisions to Field of Research (FoR) classifications affect comparisons across years (Australian Bureau of Statistics 2020). Given the limited annual observations, the analysis distinguishes directly reported values from estimates and converted measures when preparing the historical dataset and interpreting forecasts.

1.2 Project Objectives

The main objective is to forecast Australian national research computing demand through 2030 using available historical records, while documenting the limitations of the data and the assumptions required for comparison.

The project has five objectives:

1. **Construct a historical dataset** of HPC demand and allocation from publicly available NCI, Pawsey and NCMAS records, with documented sources and reporting limitations.
2. **Standardise historical measures** by examining changes in computing systems, resource units and reporting practices, and applying conversion methods where necessary.
3. **Analyse demand and allocation patterns**, including requested and allocated resources, the gap between them, CPU and GPU demand, and FoR allocation composition.
4. **Develop and evaluate forecasting models** using the available annual observations, comparing forecast accuracy, model assumptions and sensitivity to recent data.

5. **Develop demand scenarios through 2030** and examine how different growth assumptions and historical FoR allocation patterns affect the results.

These objectives are consistent with the data analysis, forecasting and scenario development requirements in the internship brief (Australian Academy of Science 2026).

2 Data Sources and Preparation

2.1 Data Sources and Coverage

The analysis covers 13 financial years, from 2013/14 to 2025/26, represented by analytical years 2014–2026. Earlier data were assembled primarily from National Computational Infrastructure (NCI) annual reports and Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre publications (National Computational Infrastructure 2014a, 2015, 2016, 2017, 2018, 2019, 2020a; Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre 2017). More recent data were drawn from National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme (NCMAS) outcomes (National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme 2021, 2022, 2023, 2024, 2025, 2026).

The sources provide different levels of detail. Earlier publications mainly contain annual or facility-level summaries, while more recent NCMAS outcomes include project-level allocations, computing resources and research fields (National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme 2021, 2024, 2026). Different documents sometimes supplied requested compute, allocations and FoR information for the same year. Historical applicant guidance was also reviewed to understand changes in allocation rules and resource definitions (National Computational Infrastructure 2014b, 2020b, 2022, 2023, 2025).

Table 1: Main data sources and their analytical roles.

Source	Information extracted	Use in analysis
NCI annual reports	Historical allocations, computing systems and reported resources	Historical series construction
Pawsey publications	Allocation information, computing systems and resource usage	Supplementary facility evidence and cross-checks
NCMAS outcomes	Requested and allocated resources, projects and research fields	Demand, allocation and FoR analysis
Supporting publications	Accounting rules, resource descriptions and contextual indicators	Conversion assumptions and interpretation

Research funding, workforce and research activity indicators were considered as potential predictors but were not included in the final models because sufficiently consistent annual series were unavailable.

2.2 Data Integration, Standardisation and Provenance

Information from NCI, Pawsey and NCMAS publications was organised into two datasets: an annual demand and allocation summary, and a Field of Research (FoR) allocation composition dataset. Records

were aligned by reporting year, computing system and resource type, with detailed observations checked against published annual totals where available.

Financial years were assigned to their ending year; for example, 2013/14 was recorded as 2014. Computing system names, resource identifiers and research field labels were standardised to support comparisons across reporting periods. CPU, GPU and aggregate computing resources were identified separately, and differences in reporting scope were recorded before aggregation.

Original values, measurement units and source references were retained alongside standardised fields. Each observation was identified as directly reported, calculated from source information or estimated using documented assumptions. Missing resource breakdowns were not treated as observed values.

2.3 Variable Definitions and Measurement Units

The main annual variables are requested compute and allocated compute. Where both measures are available on a comparable basis, the request-to-allocation ratio is calculated as:

$$R_t = \frac{D_t}{A_t}$$

where D_t represents requested compute and A_t represents allocated compute in year t.

The corresponding fulfilment rate is A_t/D_t, and the request–allocation gap is $D_t - A_t$. All three indicators are calculated only when the values have compatible units and reporting scope (Australian Academy of Science 2026).

Historical records use different measurement units, including service units (SU), kilo service units (kSU), million compute hours, CPU core-hours and GPU hours. Service units are accounting measures that depend on the computing system and resource type. Consequently, values expressed in kSU are not necessarily computationally equivalent across facilities.

CPU core-hours and GPU hours were treated as separate measures.

2.4 Compute Resource Conversion

Historical service-unit values were converted using accounting factors specific to each computing system and resource type (National Computational Infrastructure, n.d.-b; Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre, n.d.-a). Original values were retained, and conversions based on assumptions were identified separately from directly reported measures.

2.4.1 Conversion Formulas

The general relationship between service units and kilo service units is:

$$\text{SU} = \text{kSU} \times 1{,}000$$

For CPU resources reported in kSU, CPU core-hours were calculated as:

$$\text{CPU core-hours} = \frac{\text{CPU kSU} \times 1{,}000}{\text{SU per CPU core-hour}}$$

For GPU resources reported in kSU, GPU hours were calculated as:

$$\text{GPU hours} = \frac{\text{GPU kSU} \times 1{,}000}{\text{SU per GPU hour}}$$

The denominators represent the accounting factors applicable to each computing system and resource type. These factors were not assumed to be constant across all systems or reporting periods.

Where values were already reported in CPU core-hours or GPU hours, they were retained without additional service-unit conversion. Values reported in millions of hours were multiplied by 1,000,000, subject to confirmation of the original resource definition.

2.4.2 System-Specific Conversion Rules

Table 2: Main compute-resource conversion rules recorded in the year-by-year conversion worksheet.

System or resource	Reporting period	SU per resource-hour	Treatment
Raijin CPU and Magnus CPU	Selected historical years from 2013/14	1	Historical baseline; assumptions apply to some records
Gadi CPU	2020/21–2025/26	2	System-specific accounting factor
Setonix CPU	2021/22–2025/26	1	System-specific accounting factor
Setonix GPU	2021/22–2025/26	128	GPU accounting factor
Setonix Q	2025/26	256	GH200 GPU-hour conversion
Previously reported million core-hours	Selected historical years	Not applicable	Multiply by 1,000,000

The factors were compiled from system-specific documentation and the project's recorded conversion assumptions (National Computational Infrastructure, n.d.-a, 2025; Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre, n.d.-c, n.d.-b). They were applied to the corresponding system and reporting period, rather than indiscriminately to aggregate kSU values without a resource breakdown.

For the earlier years, a factor of 1 SU per CPU core-hour was used as a baseline assumption where a more specific accounting factor was unavailable. For some 2019/20 records, the original technical conversion used a documented working assumption of 100% Gadi CPU-equivalent at 2 SU per CPU core-hour because a reliable CPU/GPU split was unavailable. This assumption should not be interpreted as a directly observed resource breakdown.

Historical Fornax GPU records could not be converted reliably using the available information. These observations were retained with their original units rather than assigned an unsupported conversion factor.

2.4.3 Conversion Validation and Limitations

Converted values were checked against original units, system-level records and published annual totals where comparable data were available. Aggregate service-unit values were converted into CPU core-hours or GPU hours only when resource breakdowns and accounting factors were available, or when a documented assumption was used.

Missing GPU observations were not treated as zero demand. Conversion assumptions and estimated values were retained in the technical documentation, together with the year-by-year conversion worksheet and validation code.

2.5 Field of Research Classification Alignment

The FoR data were standardised in two stages to support comparisons across 2014–2026.

The first stage addressed differences between the FoR 2008-based reporting period (2014–2020) and the FoR 2020-based period (2021–2026) (Australian Bureau of Statistics 2020). Selected historical fields were combined into broader reporting categories through `for_analysis_group`, while the existing standardised categories were retained for the later period.

The second stage established nine analytical groups for longitudinal comparison through `for_visual_group`. These groups were informed by the broader research-field categories used in NCI and Pawsey annual reporting. Related categories were combined where reporting detail differed across years, rather than assuming that the two FoR classification systems were directly equivalent.

Original field labels were cleaned by removing numerical prefixes, standardising case, replacing ampersands and removing excess whitespace. The cleaned labels were then assigned to the nine groups using explicit matching rules.

Table 3 summarises the analytical grouping applied to the reported research fields.

Table 3: Analytical FoR grouping rules used for longitudinal comparison across 2014–2026.

Analytical group	Reported fields included
Physical Sciences	Physical sciences and radioastronomy
Chemical Sciences	Chemical sciences
Earth & Environmental Sciences	Earth sciences, environmental sciences and geosciences
Engineering & Technology	Engineering and technology
Biological & Agricultural Sciences	Biological, agricultural, veterinary and food sciences
Medical & Health Sciences	Medical, health, biomedical and clinical sciences
Mathematics & Computing	Mathematical sciences, computing and information sciences

Analytical group	Reported fields included
Social Sciences, Humanities & Built Environment	Psychology, economics, humanities, social sciences, design and built environment
Unclassified & Operational	Other, unreported, unclassified and Pawsey operational categories

The groupings were developed for analytical consistency and do not represent official one-to-one conversions between ANZSRC 2008 and ANZSRC 2020. Original research field labels and allocation values were preserved.

The 2016/17 Pawsey records contain facility-wide usage information, which differs in scope from the NCMAS allocation data used for other years (Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre 2017). This difference was retained when preparing the historical FoR dataset and is considered when comparing allocation shares across years.

Validation checks confirmed that all 133 FoR records had the required classification and allocation information, all reported fields were assigned to one of the nine analytical groups, and annual allocation shares summed to 100%.

The complete mapping rules and validation code are available in the technical Quarto documentation.

3 Forecasting Methodology

3.1 Forecasting Framework

Overall HPC demand (kSU), CPU demand (core-hours) and GPU demand (GPU-hours) were forecast separately because their measurement conventions and historical coverage differ. Field of Research (FoR) scenarios were developed from historical allocation shares because consistent field-level demand records were unavailable.

Given the limited annual observations, the analysis used naïve, drift, linear trend and log-linear trend models to compare different growth assumptions. Model selection considered forecast accuracy, interpretability and suitability for projections through 2030 (Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021).

3.2 Forecasting Models

Four forecasting approaches were considered: naïve forecasting, drift, linear trend and log-linear trend. These are established approaches to time series forecasting and regression-based trend modelling (Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021). The naïve and drift methods provided benchmarks against which the trend models could be evaluated.

3.2.1 Naïve and Drift Benchmarks

The naïve method assumes that the next observation will equal the latest observed value (Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021):

$$\hat{y}_{T+h} = y_T$$

where y_T is the most recent observation and h is the forecast horizon.

The drift method extends the average annual change observed between the first and last training observations (Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021):

$$\hat{y}_{T+h} = y_T + h\left(\frac{y_T - y_1}{T-1}\right)$$

These benchmarks provided a comparison with methods that explicitly estimate a trend from the full training sample.

3.2.2 Linear Trend Model

The linear trend model assumes that demand changes by a constant absolute amount each year (Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021):

$$y_t = \beta_0 + \beta_1 t + \varepsilon_t$$

where y_t represents demand in year t, β_0 is the intercept, β_1 is the estimated annual change and ε_t is the error term.

This specification is straightforward to interpret. For example, when CPU demand is expressed in millions of core-hours, the estimated trend coefficient represents the average annual increase in that unit.

However, a linear trend assumes that the historical absolute change continues over the forecast period. It does not account directly for future changes in computing technology, allocation policies or research funding.

3.2.3 Log-Linear Trend Model

The log-linear model assumes approximately constant proportional growth (Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021):

$$\log(y_t) = \beta_0 + \beta_1 t + \varepsilon_t$$

The corresponding growth rate is:

$$g = (e^{\beta_1} - 1) \times 100\%$$

where g is the implied annual percentage growth rate.

Unlike the linear model, the log-linear specification allows the absolute annual increase to grow as demand rises. This can produce substantially higher long-term projections when historical growth is strong.

The model requires positive demand observations and assumes that proportional growth remains relevant over the forecast horizon. Its projections were therefore considered alongside the linear model rather than accepted solely on the basis of historical fit.

3.3 Forecasting Targets and Historical Coverage

The forecasting models were applied separately to the available demand measures.

Table 4: Forecasting targets and historical coverage.

Forecasting target	Historical period	Measurement unit	Main consideration
Overall HPC demand	2014–2026	kSU	Historical reporting and accounting comparability
CPU demand	2014–2026	Million CPU core-hours	System-specific conversion assumptions
GPU demand	2022–2026	Million GPU-hours	Shorter series and estimated resource-level values

The HPC and CPU series contain 13 annual observations covering 2014–2026. GPU modelling was restricted to five observations from 2022–2026 because earlier GPU-hour estimates relied on less-supported conversion assumptions. The recent GPU series also includes derived values, limiting the reliability of model evaluation and forecasts.

All models were fitted separately for each demand measure. Forecasts were expressed in the corresponding units rather than combining CPU core-hours and GPU hours.

3.4 Model Evaluation

3.4.1 Rolling-Origin Cross-Validation

Forecasting performance was assessed using expanding-window, one-step-ahead rolling-origin cross-validation. This approach evaluates forecasts against observations that were not available when the models were fitted (Tashman 2000; Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021).

Under this approach, a model was fitted using the observations available up to a particular year and then used to predict the following year. The training window was expanded by one observation for each subsequent evaluation.

This approach preserves the chronological order of the data and avoids using future observations to estimate earlier forecasts.

For overall HPC and CPU demand, the initial training period covered 2014–2020. One-step-ahead forecasts were evaluated for 2021–2026, producing six forecast errors for each model.

For GPU demand, the initial training period covered 2022–2024, with forecasts evaluated for 2025 and 2026. This provided only two forecast errors, making GPU model comparisons less reliable than those

for overall HPC and CPU demand. Because evaluation used one-step-ahead forecasts, the accuracy measures do not directly establish performance over the full four-year projection horizon.

3.4.2 Forecast Accuracy Measures

Model accuracy was assessed using Root Mean Squared Error (RMSE) and Mean Absolute Error (MAE), two commonly used measures of forecast accuracy (Hyndman and Koehler 2006; Hyndman and Athanasopoulos 2021).

RMSE was calculated as:

$$\text{RMSE} = \sqrt{\frac{1}{n}\sum_{t=1}^{n}(y_t - \hat{y}_t)^2}$$

MAE was calculated as:

$$\text{MAE} = \frac{1}{n}\sum_{t=1}^{n}|y_t - \hat{y}_t|$$

where y_t is the observed value, $\hat{y}_t$ is the forecast value and n is the number of evaluated forecasts.

Both measures are expressed in the same units as the forecasting target. Lower values indicate better predictive accuracy.

RMSE gives greater weight to larger errors, while MAE measures the average absolute error. Both were considered because individual observations can have a substantial influence on accuracy measures when the evaluation period is short.

Model performance was compared within each demand measure. RMSE and MAE values were not compared directly across HPC, CPU and GPU series because their measurement units differ.

3.5 Model Selection and Sensitivity Analysis

Model selection considered predictive accuracy, interpretability and the assumptions required to extend historical trends through 2030.

A model with the lowest historical error was not automatically selected if its growth assumptions produced projections that were difficult to justify from the available evidence.

The linear and log-linear specifications were compared particularly closely because they represent different future growth patterns. Linear models assume a constant absolute annual increase, while log-linear models imply compounded proportional growth.

A sensitivity analysis was also conducted by fitting trend models with and without the 2026 observation. This examined how strongly the latest reported year influenced estimated growth and the resulting projections.

The comparison was intended to assess sensitivity to the historical sample rather than determine whether the 2026 observation represented a temporary or permanent change.

Forecast trajectories derived from different model specifications were treated as alternative assumptions, not formal statistical prediction intervals.

3.6 Field of Research Scenario Development

FoR scenarios were developed separately from the overall HPC, CPU and GPU forecasting models.

The available FoR data describe the distribution of allocated computing resources across research fields. They do not provide a consistent historical series of independently observed demand for every research field.

A top-down approach was therefore used. The selected overall HPC demand projection was distributed across the nine harmonised FoR groups using alternative assumptions about future allocation shares.

For research field i and forecast year t, the indicative allocation-share-based demand was calculated as:

$$\hat{D}_{i,t} = \hat{D}_t \times s_i$$

where $\hat{D}_t$ is the overall forecast HPC demand and s_i is the assumed share for research field i.

Three historical periods were examined to construct alternative share assumptions:

Table 5: Historical periods used to construct FoR allocation-share scenarios.

Scenario	Historical basis	Purpose
Recent composition	2021–2026	Reflect the more recent FoR reporting period
Full-period composition	2014–2026	Reflect the broader historical allocation pattern
Earlier composition	2014–2020	Examine sensitivity to the earlier research-field distribution

For each scenario, the allocation share of each FoR group was averaged across available years within the selected period, giving equal weight to each year. Missing group-year observations were not automatically assigned zero. The resulting average shares were normalised to sum to 100% before being applied to the overall HPC demand forecast.

These scenarios show how different historical allocation patterns affect the distribution of projected HPC demand. They are not independently validated forecasts of future requests by research field.

3.7 Forecast Horizon and Interpretation

Forecasts were generated for 2027–2030 by fitting the selected models to the available historical observations. Alternative growth assumptions and models excluding 2026 were retained for sensitivity analysis.

The projections extend historical demand trends rather than estimate future infrastructure capacity requirements directly. They do not explicitly account for changes in research policy, computing technology

or access to HPC resources. Historical accounting differences and the limited annual observations, particularly for GPU demand, also restrict forecast reliability.

4 Results

4.1 Initial Analysis

The initial analysis examined historical HPC demand and allocation, CPU and GPU resources, and the distribution of allocations across Fields of Research (FoR). The results were used to identify trends, assess differences in reporting coverage and determine which series were suitable for forecasting.

4.1.1 Historical HPC Demand and Allocation

Figure 1 shows historical HPC requests and allocations from 2014 to 2026.

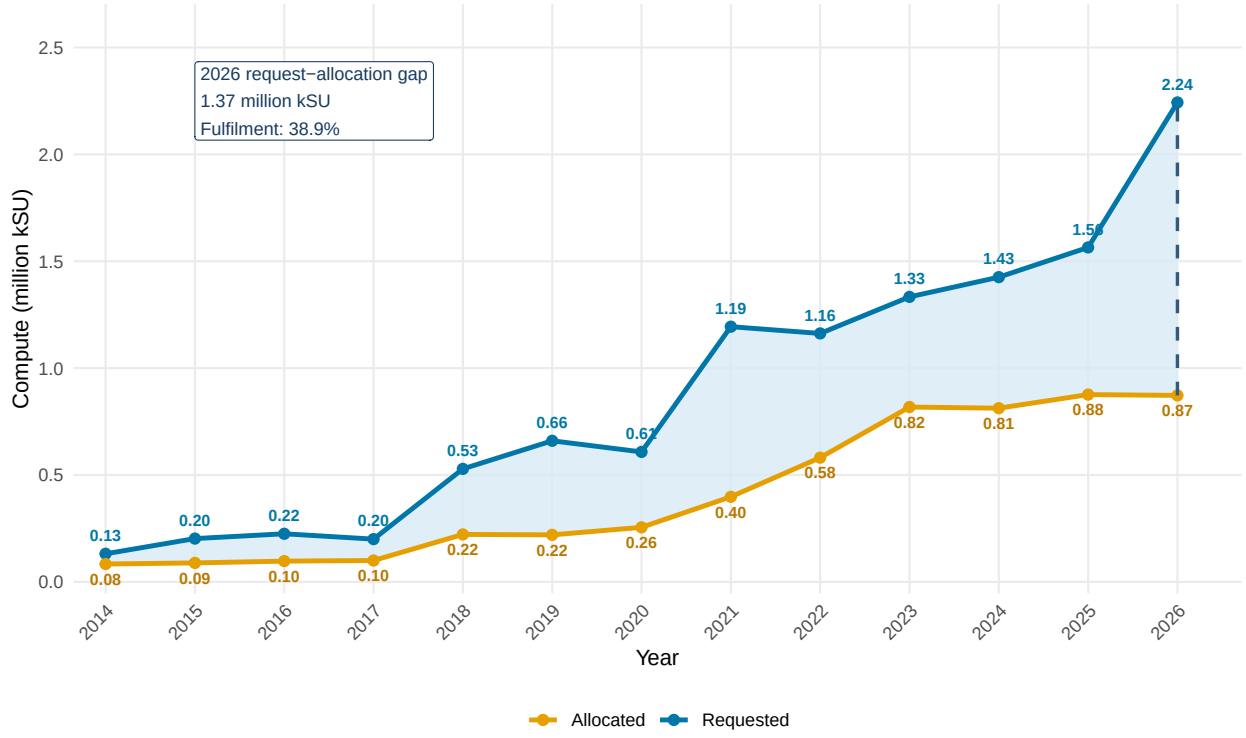


Figure 1: Historical HPC requests and allocations, 2014–2026. Shading represents the recorded request–allocation gap. Values are in million kSU.

Recorded requests increased from 131,356 kSU in 2014 to 2,242,817 kSU in 2026, while allocations increased from 83,505 to 872,288 kSU. Between 2023 and 2026, requests grew by approximately 68%, compared with 6% for allocations. The request–allocation gap reached 1.37 million kSU in 2026, and the fulfilment rate fell from 56.0% in 2025 to 38.9%.

The 2026 increase in requests was approximately 43.3% relative to the reconstructed 2025 value. Changes in computing systems and accounting practices may also affect historical comparisons, particularly

around the Raijin–Gadi and Magnus–Setonix transitions. The 2026 allocation figure excludes 12,000 kSU associated with Setonix Q. The observed gap indicates pressure on allocated resources, but does not measure all unmet national research demand.

4.1.2 CPU Demand and Allocation

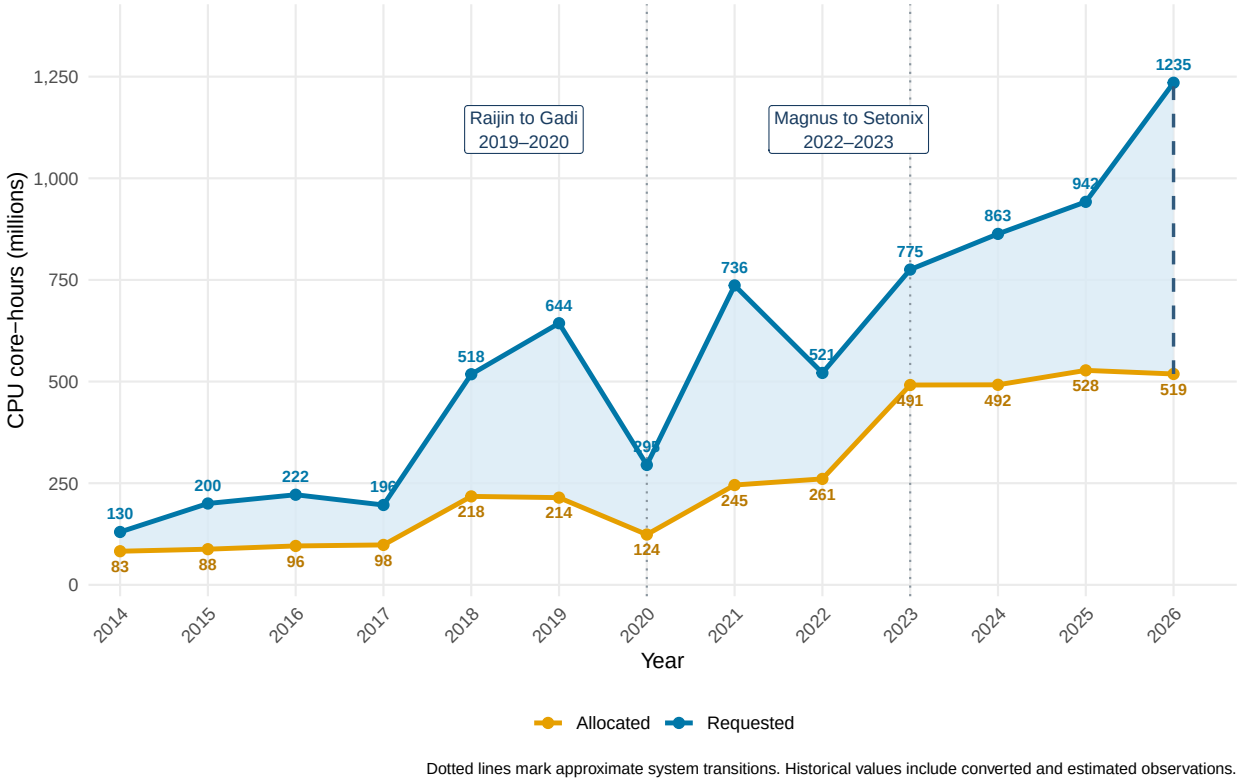


Figure 2: Historical CPU requests and allocations, 2014–2026. Shading shows the recorded gap; values include system-specific conversions and estimates.

Figure 2 shows historical CPU requests and allocations from 2014 to 2026, including converted and estimated values.

Estimated CPU requests reached approximately 1.24 billion core-hours in 2026, compared with allocations of approximately 519 million core-hours. Requests increased substantially after 2022, while allocations changed relatively little between 2023 and 2026.

The reconstructed series contains sharp changes around 2019–2022, when Raijin was replaced by Gadi and Magnus by Setonix. These transitions involved different computing systems and accounting rules, but the available records do not establish them as the causes of the fluctuations. Some 2019/20 observations also relied on a Gadi CPU-equivalent assumption because the CPU/GPU breakdown was unavailable. The long-term increase in estimated CPU requests is therefore more informative than individual year-to-year changes.

4.1.3 GPU Demand and Allocation

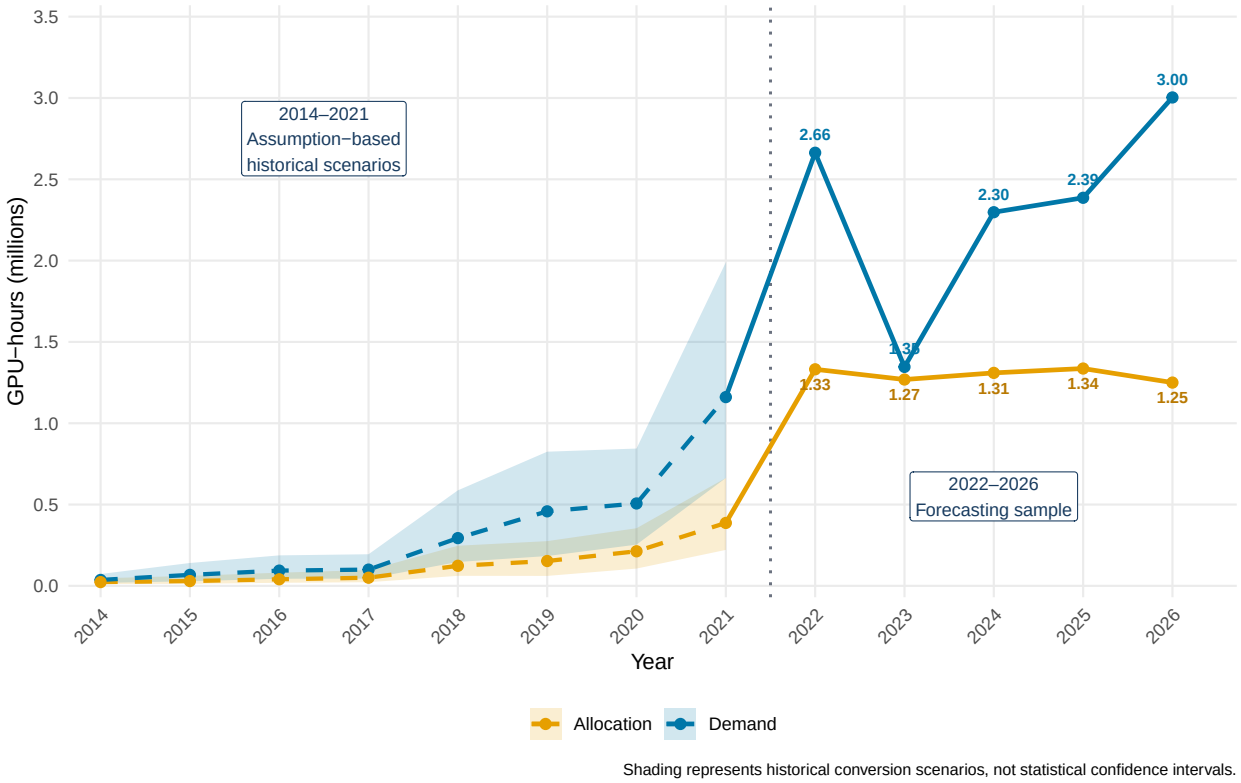


Figure 3: Historical GPU demand and allocation, 2014–2026. Dashed lines and shaded ranges indicate assumption-based historical estimates; solid lines show the 2022–2026 forecasting sample.

Figure 3 shows historical GPU requests and allocations, including alternative conversion assumptions for 2014–2021 and the shorter 2022–2026 forecasting sample.

Earlier GPU records lacked consistent GPU-hour measures and system-specific conversion information. Baseline and low–high estimates were therefore constructed using documented assumptions. The shaded range represents differences between these historical conversion assumptions, not statistical confidence intervals. Because these estimates depend heavily on the assumptions, they were excluded from model evaluation.

The 2022–2026 series provides a more consistent, although still partly estimated, basis for forecasting. Estimated GPU requests reached approximately 3.00 million GPU-hours in 2026, compared with allocations of approximately 1.25 million GPU-hours. Official Setonix GPU requests also increased by approximately 123% in service units between 2023 and 2026, although this percentage cannot be interpreted as equivalent growth in GPU-hours.

Estimated GPU requests increased from 2023 to 2026, but the five-year modelling sample and reliance on converted observations limit the reliability of forecasts through 2030.

4.1.4 Field of Research Allocation Composition

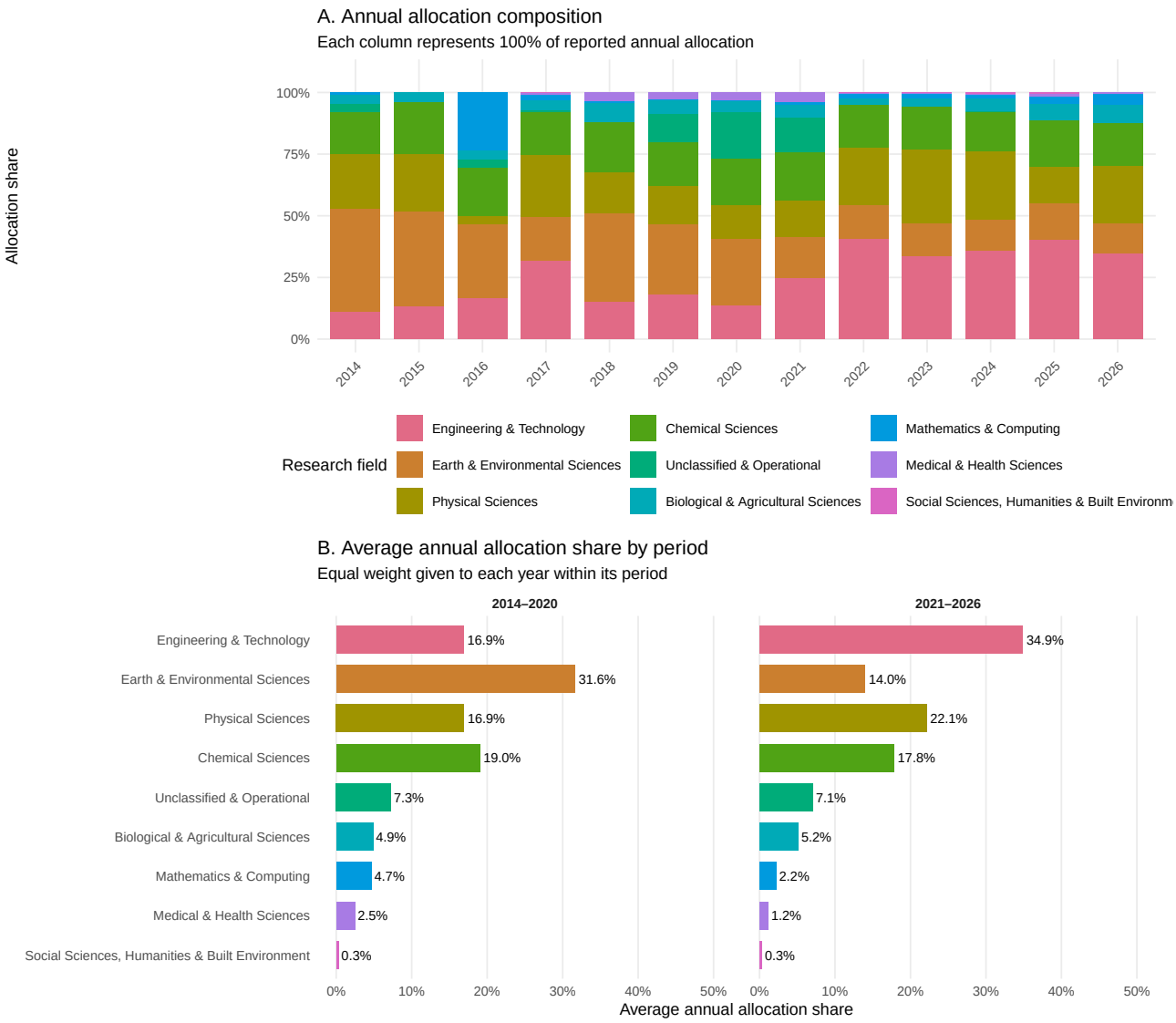


Figure 4: HPC allocation composition by Field of Research, 2014–2026. The lower panel compares average annual shares across two reporting periods.

Figure 4 shows the annual distribution of HPC allocations across nine analytical Field of Research (FoR) groups and compares average annual shares between 2014–2020 and 2021–2026.

During 2014–2020, Earth and Environmental Sciences accounted for approximately 32% of average annual allocations, followed by Chemical Sciences at 19%. Physical Sciences and Engineering and Technology each represented approximately 17%. In 2021–2026, Engineering and Technology became the largest group at approximately 35%, followed by Physical Sciences at 22%, Chemical Sciences at 18%, and Earth and Environmental Sciences at 14%.

These differences should be interpreted alongside the change from FoR 2008 to FoR 2020 classifications and the inclusion of Pawsey-wide reporting in 2016/17. The nine analytical groups support comparison

but cannot eliminate differences in classification or reporting scope.

The results describe allocation shares rather than independently observed demand by research field. The earlier and recent distributions are used to construct alternative FoR scenarios in Section 4.4.

4.2 Forecast Model Evaluation

The naïve, drift, linear trend and log-linear trend models were compared using one-year-ahead rolling-origin forecasts. Overall HPC and CPU accuracy was evaluated over 2021–2026, while GPU accuracy was evaluated over 2025–2026. Results are reported separately because the three demand measures use different units and historical periods.

4.2.1 Overall HPC Demand

Figure 5 compares observed HPC demand with one-year-ahead forecasts from the four models. The naïve model generally underestimated demand during periods of growth, while drift and linear trend followed the observed series more closely. The log-linear model tended to overestimate demand, particularly after 2022. However, all four models underestimated the sharp increase in 2026.

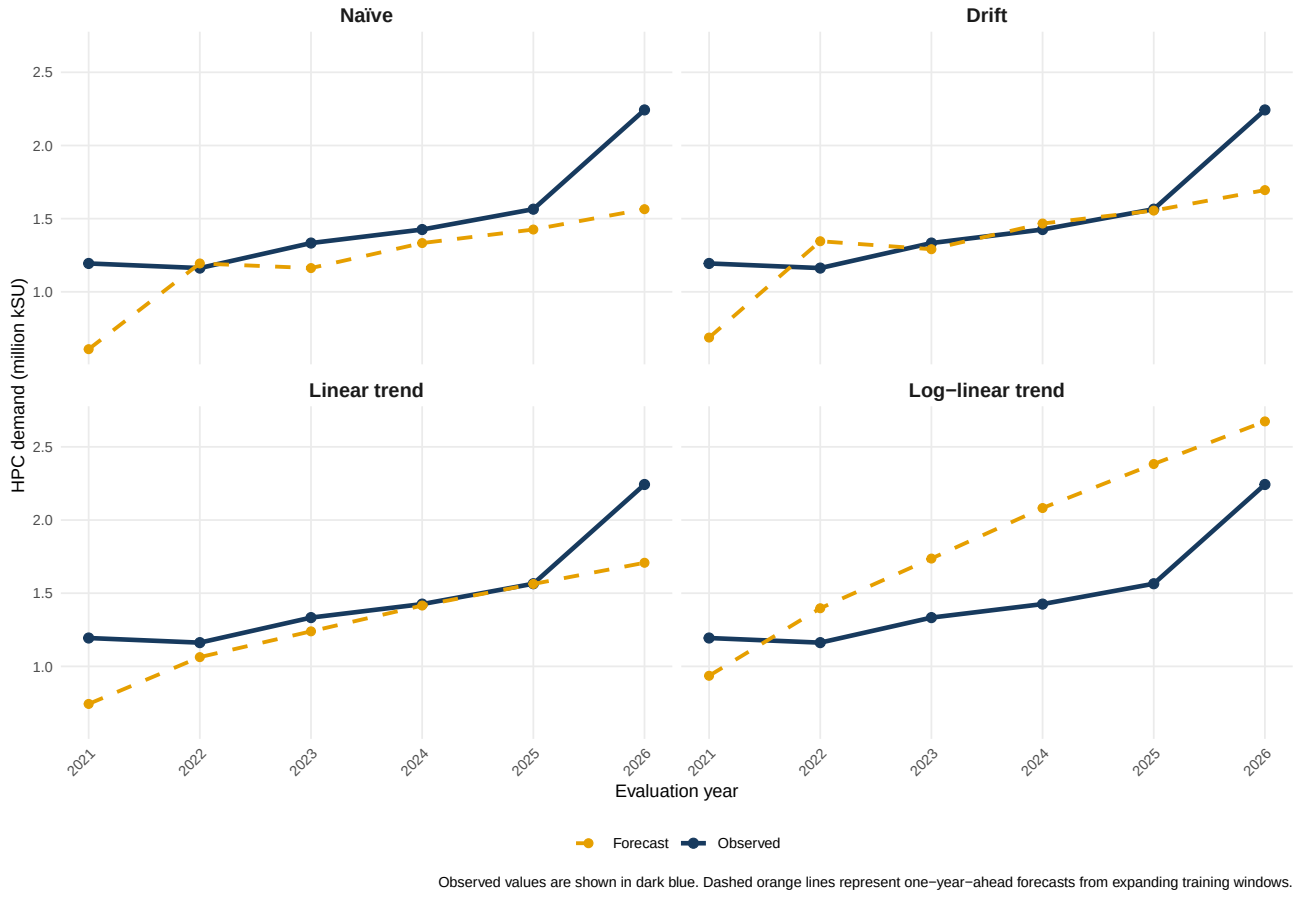


Figure 5: Observed overall HPC demand and rolling-origin one-year-ahead forecasts, 2021–2026. All panels use the same vertical scale.

Table 6 summarises forecast accuracy over 2021–2026. The linear trend achieved the lowest RMSE

(290,898 kSU) and MAE (198,295 kSU). Its RMSE was 23.2% lower than naïve and 7.5% lower than drift. The log-linear model performed worst, with an RMSE of 511,614 kSU.

Table 6: Rolling-origin forecast accuracy for overall HPC demand, 2021–2026.

Model	RMSE (kSU)	MAE (kSU)	RMSE rank
Linear trend	**290,898**	**198,295**	**1**
Drift	314,588	221,778	2
Naïve	378,864	283,000	3
Log-linear trend	511,614	466,991	4

The linear trend was selected as the central HPC forecasting model because it had the lowest evaluation errors and assumes a constant absolute annual increase. However, including 2026 increased the fitted annual trend from approximately 144,357 to 161,992 kSU (12.2%). The model excluding 2026 was therefore retained for sensitivity analysis, while the log-linear model was retained to examine continued proportional growth.

The evaluation is based on six one-year-ahead forecasts. It does not establish how accurately the selected model will predict demand through 2030. Section 4.3 compares the resulting projections and alternative growth assumptions.

4.2.2 CPU Demand

Figure 6 compares observed CPU demand with one-year-ahead forecasts from the four models over 2021–2026. The naïve and drift models struggled with changes in demand, particularly the decline in 2022. The linear trend produced forecasts relatively close to observed demand during 2023–2025 but underestimated demand in the later evaluation years. The log-linear model generally overestimated demand from 2022 to 2025, although its 2026 forecast was closer to the observed value.

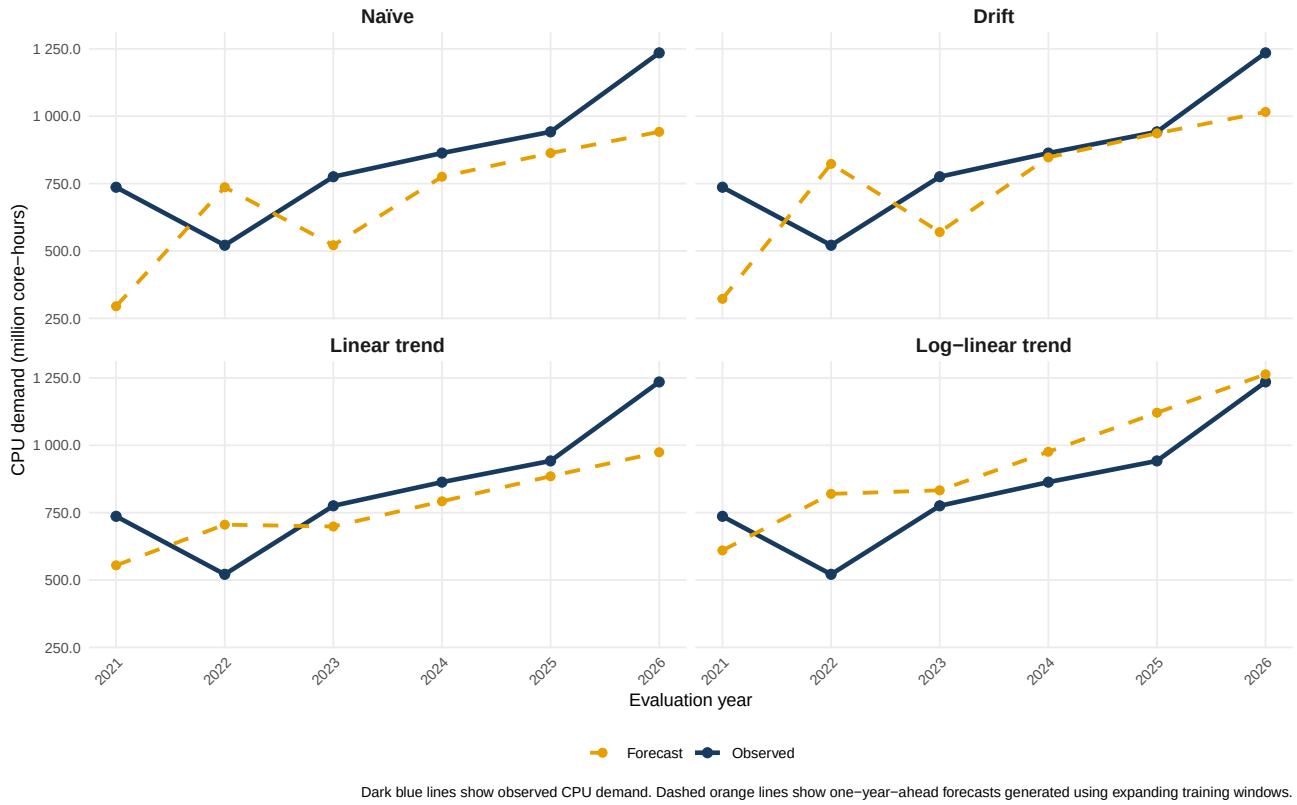


Figure 6: Observed CPU demand and rolling-origin one-year-ahead forecasts, 2021–2026. All panels use the same vertical scale.

Table 7 reports forecast accuracy across the six evaluation years. The linear trend achieved the lowest RMSE (157.72 million core-hours), while the log-linear model achieved the lowest MAE (133.74 million core-hours). The difference in RMSE between the two models was approximately 1.5%, compared with 3.5% for MAE. Neither model performed best on both measures.

Table 7: Rolling-origin forecast accuracy for CPU demand, 2021–2026.

Model	RMSE (million core-hours)	MAE (million core-hours)	RMSE rank
Linear trend	**157.72**	138.65	**1**
Log-linear trend	160.18	**133.74**	2
Drift	242.61	193.69	3
Naïve	260.05	228.45	4

The linear trend was selected as the central CPU forecasting model because it had the lowest RMSE and assumes a constant annual increase in demand. The log-linear model was retained as an alternative because its MAE was lower and its proportional-growth assumption produces a different forecast trajectory through 2030.

Including the 2026 observation increased the estimated annual growth rate in the linear model from 72.41 million to 81.01 million CPU core-hours (11.9%). This shows that the fitted trend is sensitive to

the latest observation. The model excluding 2026 was retained to assess how this difference affects the projections through 2030 (Section 4.3).

4.2.3 GPU Demand

Figure 7 compares observed GPU demand with one-year-ahead forecasts for 2025 and 2026. The vertical segments show the forecast errors for each model. All four models underestimated demand in 2026, when estimated GPU requests reached approximately 3.00 million GPU-hours. The naïve model forecast approximately 2.39 million GPU-hours, while the trend models also failed to anticipate the increase.

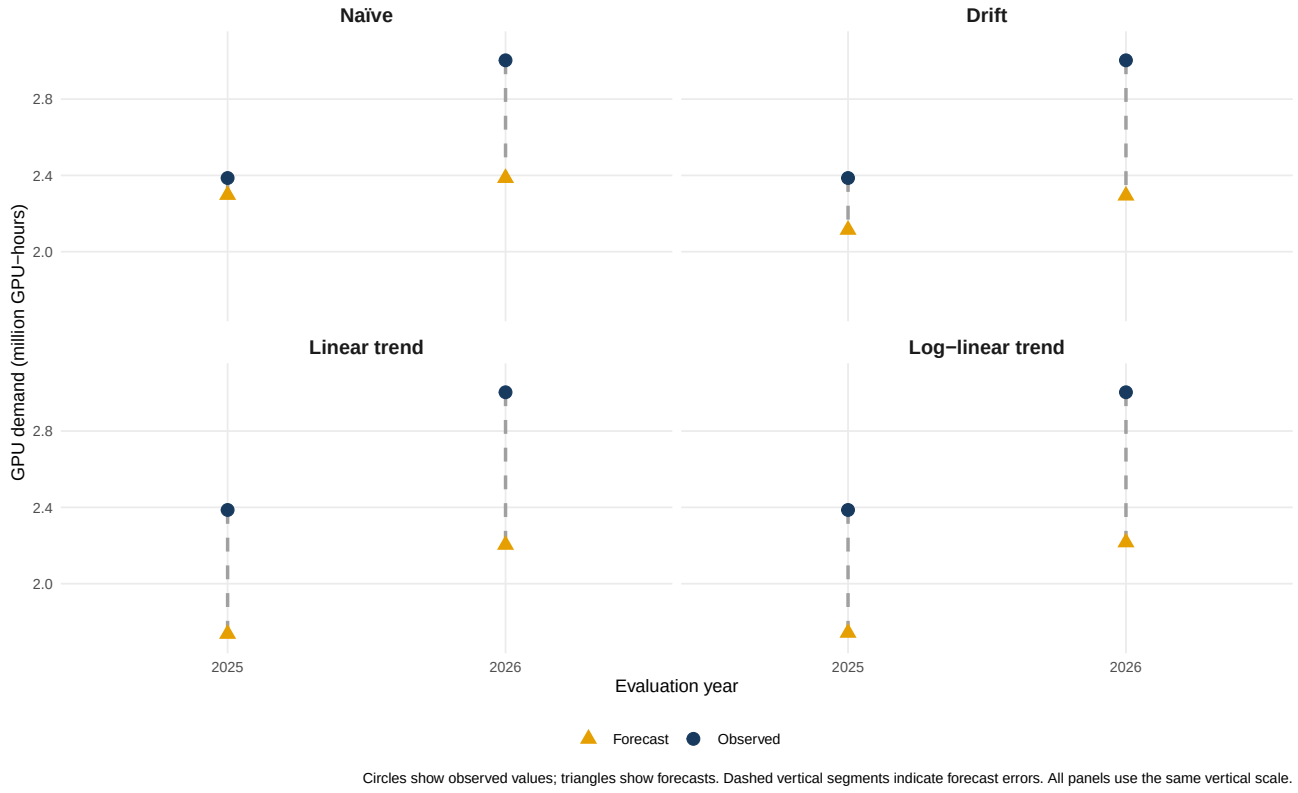


Figure 7: Observed GPU demand and exploratory one-year-ahead forecasts, 2025–2026. Vertical segments show the difference between observed and forecast values. Only two evaluation years were available.

Table 8 reports the accuracy results from the two evaluation years. The naïve model achieved the lowest RMSE (0.441 million GPU-hours) and MAE (0.353 million GPU-hours), followed by drift, log-linear trend and linear trend.

Table 8: Exploratory rolling-origin forecast accuracy for GPU demand, 2025–2026.

Model	RMSE (million GPU-hours)	MAE (million GPU-hours)	RMSE rank
Naïve	0.441	0.353	1
Drift	0.537	0.490	2
Log-linear trend	0.719	0.715	3

Table 8: Exploratory rolling-origin forecast accuracy for GPU demand, 2025–2026.

Model	RMSE (million GPU-hours)	MAE (million GPU-hours)	RMSE rank
Linear trend	0.729	0.725	4

These rankings are based on only two forecast errors per model. The GPU series also includes converted and estimated observations, so the results do not establish which method would perform best over a longer period. In particular, the naïve model's lower evaluation errors do not imply that GPU demand will remain constant through 2030.

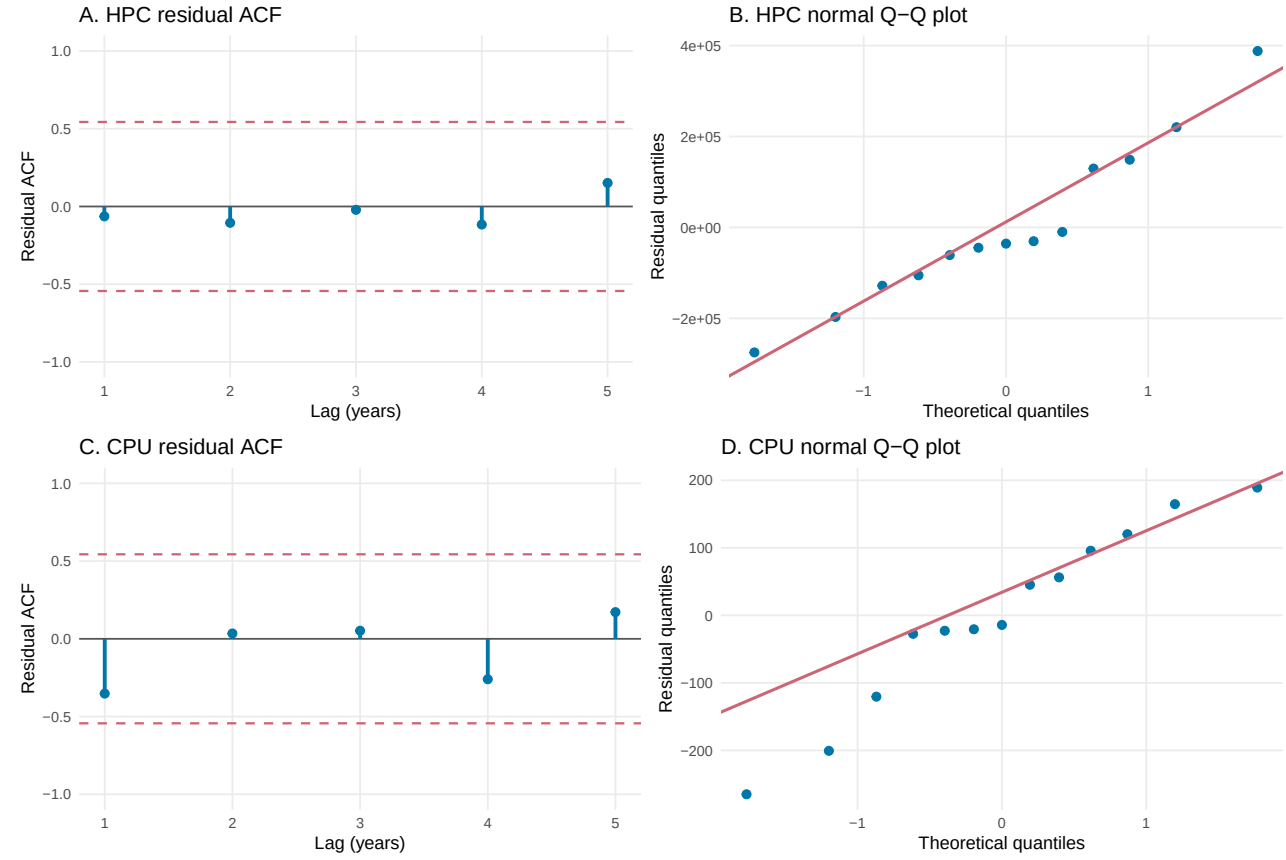
The naïve model was retained as a reference, while linear and log-linear trends were used to examine alternative growth assumptions. No model was selected as a central GPU forecast. GPU projections were therefore treated as exploratory and excluded from the initial national HPC planning scenarios, which use the overall HPC demand forecast and historical Field of Research allocation shares.

Section 4.3 presents the exploratory GPU projections through 2030.

4.2.4 Residual Diagnostics

Residual diagnostics were conducted on the selected linear trend models fitted to the full 2014–2026 HPC and CPU demand series. The analysis examined residual autocorrelation using ACF plots and Ljung–Box tests, and departures from normality using Q–Q plots. These checks were used to assess the assumptions underlying the model-based prediction intervals.

Figure 8 shows the residual ACF and Q–Q plots for both models.



stics use in−sample residuals from linear trend models fitted to 2014–2026. Dashed ACF lines are approximate reference limits. CPU residuals are measured in million core−hours.

Figure 8: Residual diagnostics for the selected linear trend models fitted to 2014–2026: residual ACF and normal Q–Q plots for overall HPC and CPU demand.

The ACF plots show that none of the displayed residual correlations exceeds the approximate reference limits. HPC residual correlations are generally small, while CPU residuals show negative correlations at lags 1 and 4.

Table 9 reports the Ljung–Box tests using three lags.

Table 9: Ljung–Box tests of residual autocorrelation for the selected linear trend models, using three lags.

Demand measure	Ljung-Box statistic	Lag	Degrees of freedom	p-value
Overall HPC	0.271	3	3	0.965
CPU	2.092	3	3	0.554

Neither test rejected the null hypothesis of no residual autocorrelation at the 5% significance level (HPC: $p = 0.965$; CPU: $p = 0.554$). However, with only 13 annual observations, these results do not establish that the residuals are independent.

The HPC Q–Q plot shows some departures from the normal reference line, particularly in the upper tail. The CPU plot shows more noticeable departures in the lower tail. These departures raise concerns

about the normal-error assumption, particularly for CPU demand.

The diagnostics did not identify statistically significant residual autocorrelation at the tested lags, but the small sample and Q–Q plot departures limit confidence in the models' error assumptions. The prediction intervals presented in Section 4.3 should therefore be interpreted cautiously.

4.3 Demand Forecasts to 2030

4.3.1 Overall HPC Demand

The linear trend model was selected for the central HPC demand forecast based on its rolling-origin accuracy (Section 4.2.1). It was fitted to the 2014–2026 series to project demand through 2030. Three alternatives were also examined: a linear model excluding 2026 and two log-linear models fitted with and without 2026. These specifications assess sensitivity to the latest observation and the assumed growth pattern.

Figure 9 compares the historical observations and four projected trajectories.

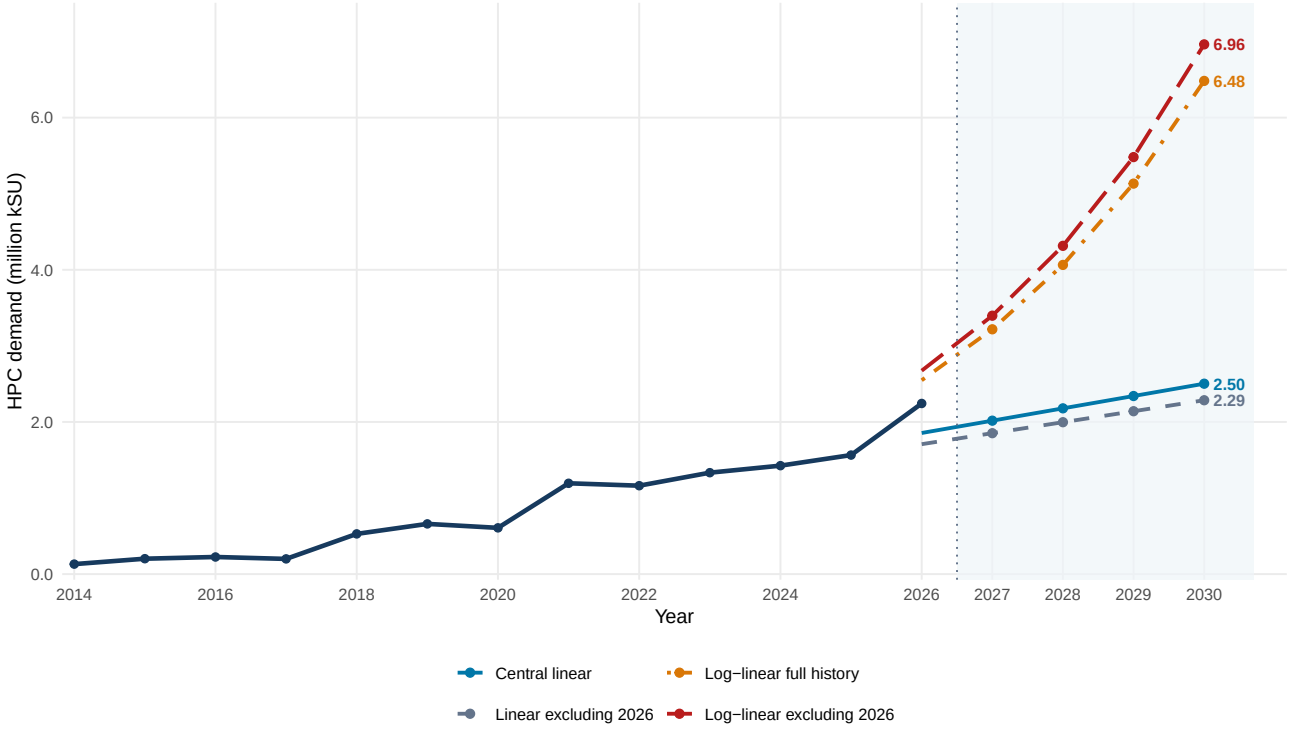


Figure 9: Historical HPC demand and alternative projections to 2030. The full-history linear model provides the central forecast. Alternative trajectories show sensitivity to the 2026 observation and growth assumptions.

The central linear model projects HPC demand of approximately 2.02 million kSU in 2027 and 2.50 million kSU in 2030, increasing by 161,992 kSU annually. Excluding 2026 reduces the 2030 projection to approximately 2.29 million kSU, or 210,000 kSU below the central estimate.

The full-history log-linear model projects approximately 6.48 million kSU in 2030. This substantially

higher estimate reflects its assumption of continued proportional growth rather than a constant annual increase. However, the log-linear model had the highest forecast errors in Section 4.2.1 and was retained as a sensitivity scenario rather than a central forecast or validated upper bound.

The results show that the choice between linear and proportional growth has a greater effect on the 2030 projection than excluding the 2026 observation. The linear model remains the central reference, while the alternatives illustrate uncertainty arising from model assumptions. All projections represent recorded HPC requests, not precise future infrastructure capacity requirements.

4.3.1.1 Prediction Intervals and Forecast Uncertainty

The alternative forecasting scenarios show how projections change under different model assumptions. Statistical prediction intervals instead estimate the range of future annual demand under the selected linear model and its error assumptions.

?@fig-hpc-prediction-intervals shows the central HPC forecast with 80% and 95% prediction intervals.

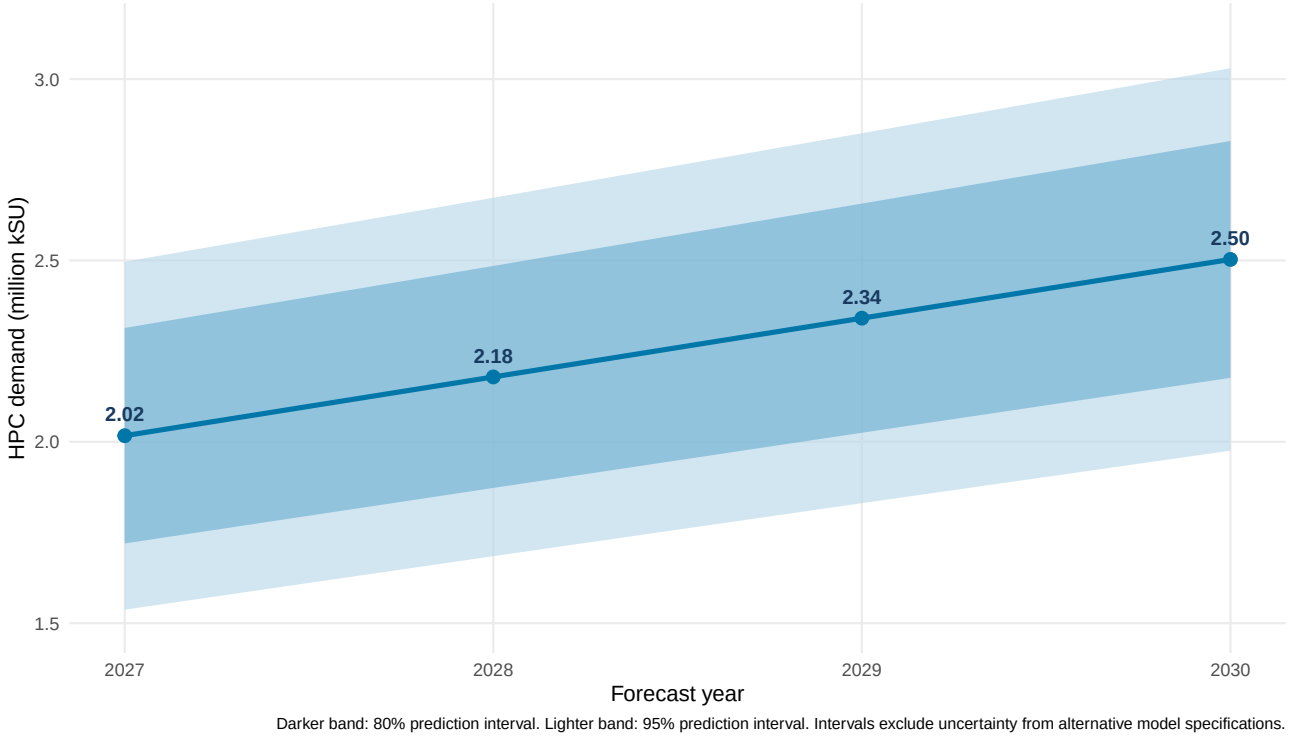


Figure 10: Central HPC demand projection with 80% and 95% model-based prediction intervals, 2027–2030. Intervals are conditional on the fitted linear model.

The central model projects approximately 2.50 million kSU in 2030, with a 95% prediction interval of 1.98–3.03 million kSU. This interval reflects uncertainty around an individual future annual observation, conditional on the fitted linear trend.

The intervals do not account for alternative growth models, changes in computing technology or reporting practices, or demand that is not captured by recorded requests. The residual diagnostics in Section 4.2.4 also identified limitations in assessing the model's error assumptions using only 13 annual observations.

The intervals should therefore not be treated as definitive bounds on future national HPC demand.

4.3.2 CPU Demand

The linear trend model was fitted to the 2014–2026 CPU demand series to project demand through 2030. Three alternatives were examined: a linear model excluding 2026 and two log-linear models fitted with and without 2026. The linear model was retained as the central forecast based on its slightly lower RMSE in Section 4.2.2.

Figure 11 compares the historical CPU demand series with the four projected trajectories.

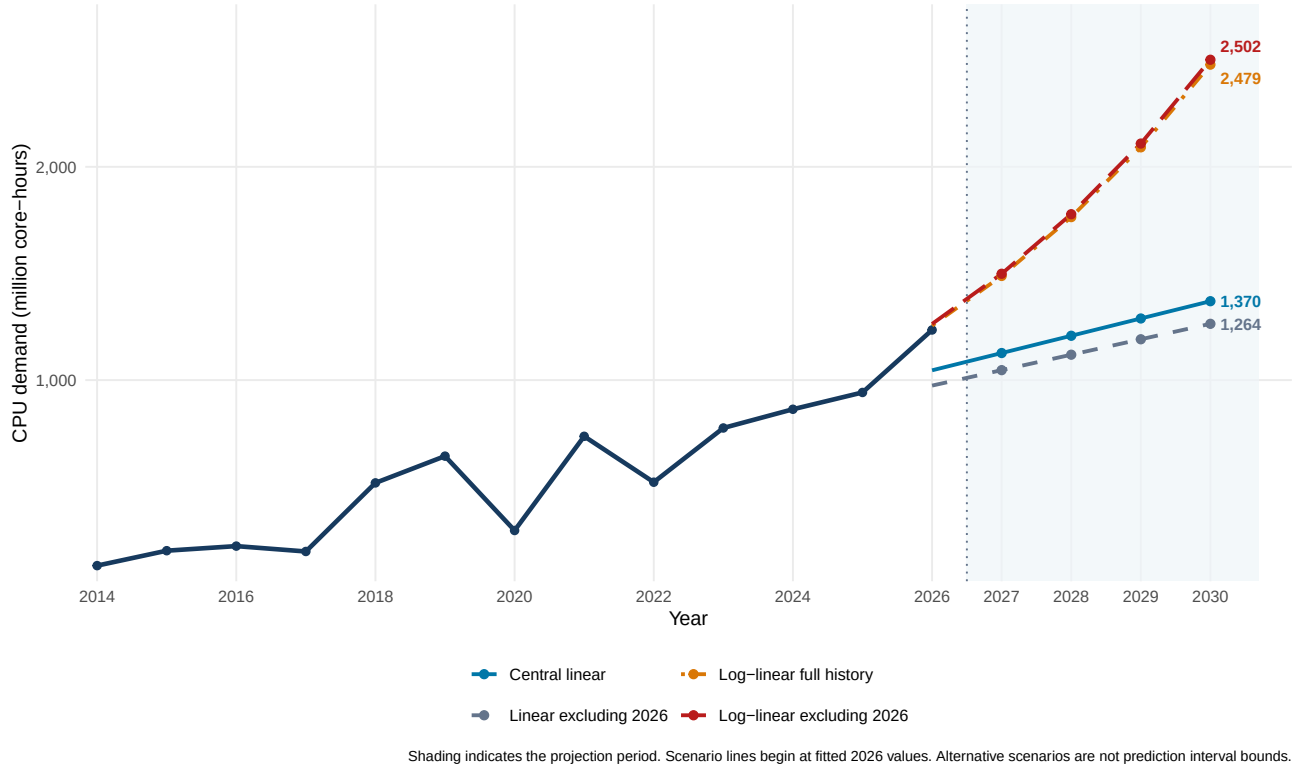


Figure 11: Historical CPU demand and alternative projections to 2030. The full-history linear model provides the central forecast; other trajectories illustrate sensitivity to the 2026 observation and growth assumptions.

The central linear model projects approximately 1.13 billion CPU core-hours in 2027, increasing by 81.01 million core-hours annually to reach 1.37 billion in 2030. This is approximately 10.9% above the reconstructed 2026 demand.

Excluding 2026 reduces the 2030 projection to approximately 1.26 billion core-hours, around 106 million below the central forecast. The difference reflects the influence of the latest observation on the fitted linear trend.

The full-history log-linear model projects approximately 2.48 billion core-hours in 2030, around 81% above the central forecast. Although the two models achieved similar one-year-ahead accuracy, their projections differ substantially because log-linear growth compounds over time, while the linear model adds a constant annual amount.

The log-linear models were retained as alternative scenarios because of their competitive evaluation accuracy. However, the available observations do not establish whether proportional growth will continue through 2030. The linear projection remains the central reference, while the alternatives show how the forecast changes under different growth assumptions.

4.3.2.1 CPU Prediction Intervals

The alternative CPU forecasts show the effects of model selection and excluding 2026. Prediction intervals instead describe uncertainty around future annual observations under the selected linear model.

Figure 12 presents the central CPU forecast with 80% and 95% prediction intervals for 2027–2030.

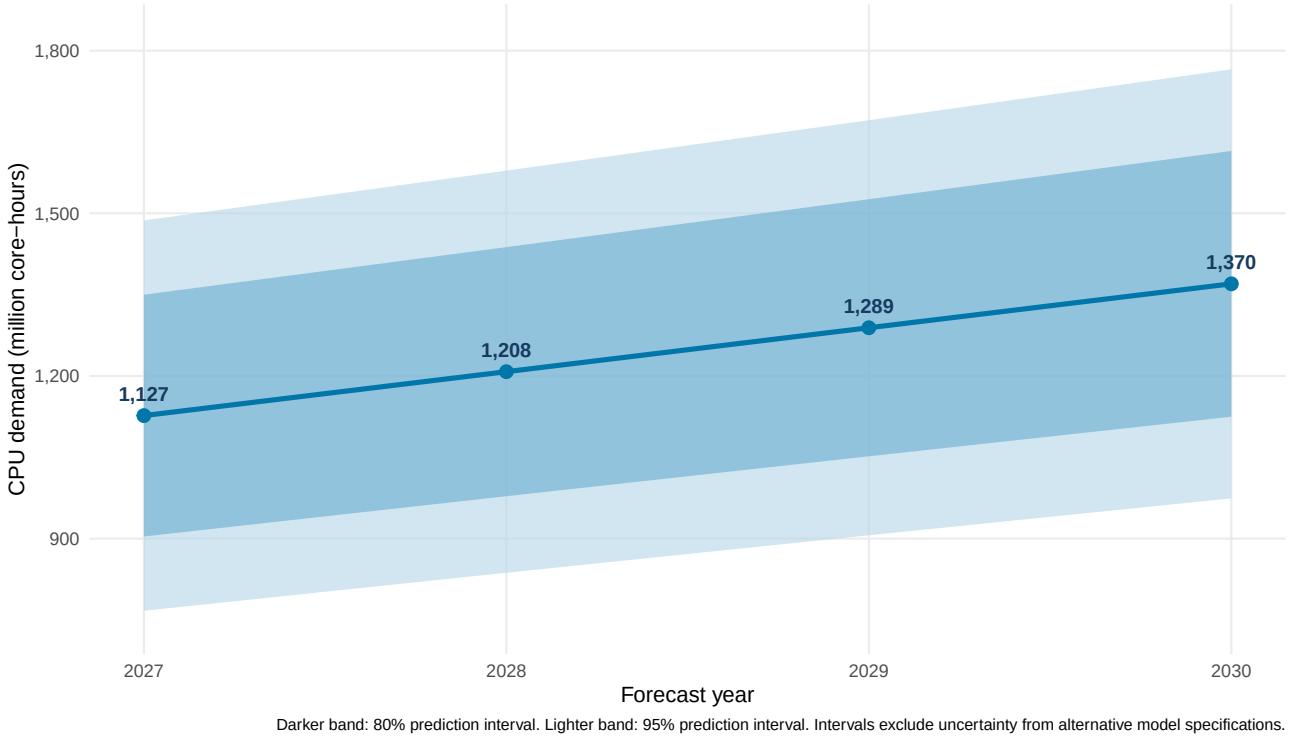


Figure 12: Central CPU demand projection with 80% and 95% model-based prediction intervals, 2027–2030. Intervals are conditional on the fitted linear model.

The central model projects approximately 1.37 billion CPU core-hours in 2030, with a 95% prediction interval of 0.97–1.77 billion core-hours. The interval describes uncertainty around an individual annual observation, conditional on the fitted linear model.

The full-history log-linear projection of 2.48 billion core-hours lies above this interval. This is not a contradiction: the interval reflects uncertainty within the linear model, whereas the log-linear projection uses a different growth assumption.

The intervals do not account for uncertainty in historical resource conversions, changes in computing systems or alternative model specifications. The residual diagnostics in Section 4.2.4 also showed departures from normality in the CPU residuals. These limitations affect how confidently the intervals can be interpreted.

CPU projections should be considered alongside overall HPC demand rather than added to it, because the two series represent related computing requirements.

4.3.3 GPU Demand

GPU demand projections were treated as exploratory because only five annual observations from 2022–2026 were available for modelling. No central model or statistical prediction intervals were selected, as discussed in Section 4.2.3.

Figure 13 compares the historical GPU demand estimates with five projections through 2030.



Figure 13: Historical GPU demand estimates and five exploratory projections to 2030. Scenarios reflect different growth assumptions and the inclusion of 2026.

The naïve benchmark projects approximately 3.00 million GPU-hours in 2030. The full-history linear and log-linear models project 3.37 million and 3.68 million GPU-hours, respectively. Excluding 2026 reduces these projections to 2.25 million GPU-hours for the linear model and 2.41 million for the log-linear model.

The difference between the two linear projections is approximately 1.12 million GPU-hours in 2030, with the model including 2026 producing a 49.7% higher estimate. Across all five scenarios, projected demand ranges from 2.25 to 3.68 million GPU-hours. These values reflect differences in model assumptions and historical coverage, not validated lower and upper bounds on future demand.

GPU projections were excluded from the initial national HPC planning scenarios because the available data do not support a reliable central GPU forecast. The results are retained to show how strongly the projections depend on the inclusion of 2026 and the assumed growth pattern.

4.4 Field of Research Scenarios

Historical Field of Research (FoR) allocation shares were used to distribute the selected national HPC demand forecast across nine research-field groups. Three reference periods were compared: 2014–2020, 2021–2026 and 2014–2026. Because consistent field-level request data were unavailable, the resulting distributions represent allocation-share scenarios rather than independent forecasts of demand by research field.

4.4.1 Scenario Construction

For each reference period, the mean allocation share of each research-field group was calculated using its available annual observations. These means were normalised so that the nine groups accounted for 100% of the projected national demand:

$$w_f^{(s)} = \frac{\overline{a}_f^{(s)}}{\sum_j \overline{a}_j^{(s)}}$$

where $w_f^{(s)}$ is the normalised weight for research field f under scenario s, and $\overline{a}_f^{(s)}$ is its mean annual allocation share during the selected period.

Each available year received equal weight. Missing observations were not treated as zero, and the resulting weights were held constant for 2027–2030. The calculations therefore compare historical allocation compositions without assuming future changes in research-field shares.

4.4.2 Historical Allocation Assumptions

Figure 14 compares the normalised allocation shares for the three reference periods. All nine research-field groups are included.

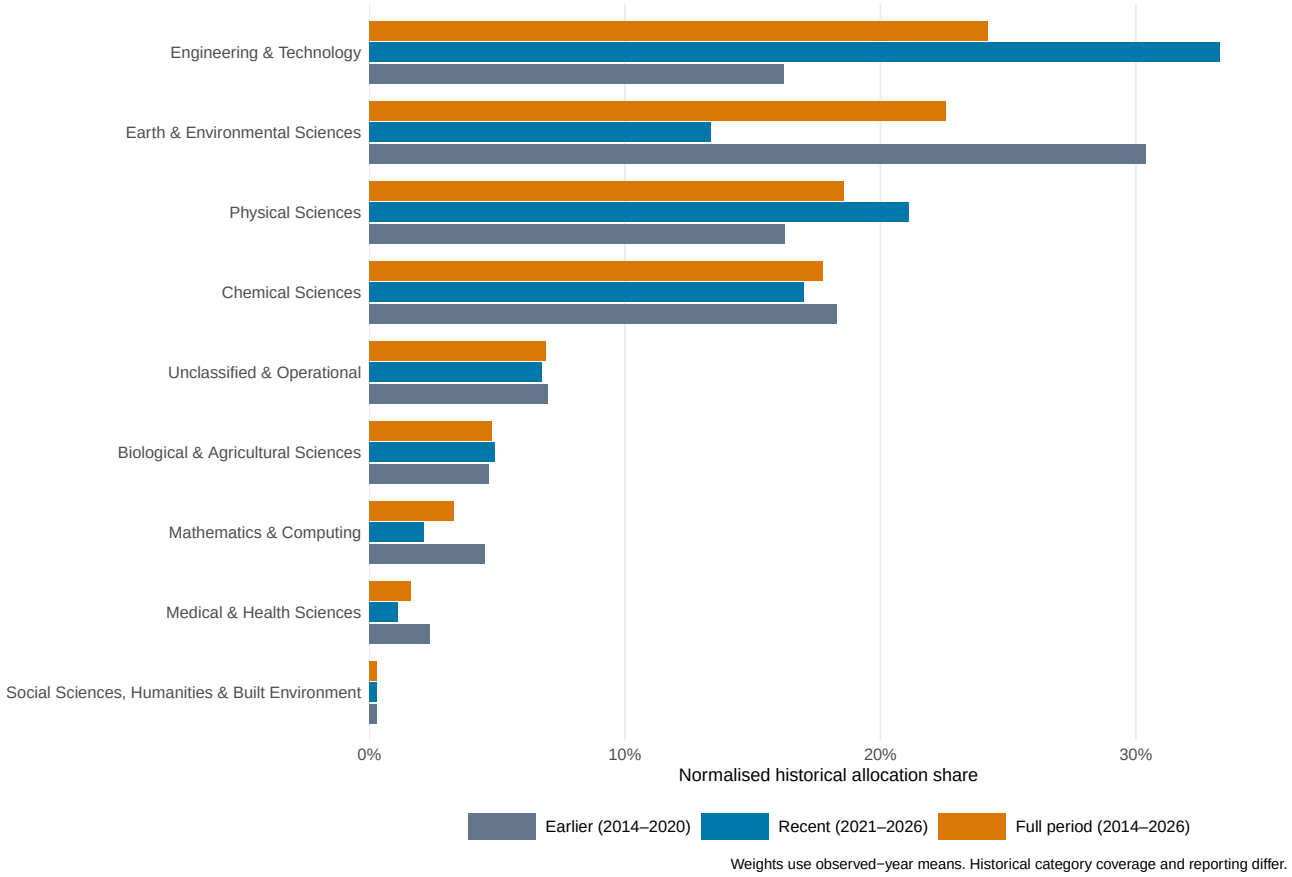


Figure 14: Normalised Field of Research allocation shares across three historical reference periods.

Table 10 reports the normalised scenario weights for all nine research-field groups. The number of reported years is also included to show where the historical coverage differs.

Table 10: Normalised FoR allocation weights and reporting coverage across the three historical reference periods.

Research field	Earlier (2014–2020)	Recent (2021–2026)	Full period (2014–2026)
Biological & Agricultural Sciences	4.69% (7)	4.93% (6)	4.81% (13)
Chemical Sciences	18.28% (7)	17.02% (6)	17.74% (13)
Earth & Environmental Sciences	30.38% (7)	13.36% (6)	22.55% (13)
Engineering & Technology	16.24% (7)	33.28% (6)	24.19% (13)
Mathematics & Computing	4.51% (6)	2.13% (6)	3.32% (12)
Medical & Health Sciences	2.38% (4)	1.12% (6)	1.63% (10)
Physical Sciences	16.26% (7)	21.11% (6)	18.55% (13)
Social Sciences, Humanities & Built Environment	0.30% (1)	0.30% (4)	0.30% (5)
Unclassified & Operational	6.98% (5)	6.75% (2)	6.92% (7)

Note: Each cell shows the normalised allocation weight followed by the number of years with reported observations in parentheses. The reference periods contain seven, six and thirteen years respectively. Percentages are normalised within each period.

The earlier-period scenario gives the largest allocation weight to Earth and Environmental Sciences at approximately 30.38%. Chemical Sciences follows at 18.28%, with Physical Sciences and Engineering and Technology accounting for 16.26% and 16.24% respectively.

The recent-period composition differs considerably. Engineering and Technology becomes the largest group at 33.28%, followed by Physical Sciences (21.11%), Chemical Sciences (17.02%) and Earth and Environmental Sciences (13.36%).

Engineering and Technology therefore gains approximately 17.04 percentage points between the earlier and recent scenarios. Over the same comparison, Earth and Environmental Sciences loses approximately 17.02 percentage points.

The full-period weights lie between these two compositions for the major research fields. Engineering and Technology accounts for approximately 24.19%, Earth and Environmental Sciences for 22.55%, Physical Sciences for 18.55% and Chemical Sciences for 17.74%.

Reporting coverage also differs across research fields. For example, the recent-period weight for Unclassified and Operational is based on only two reported years, while most major research fields have observations for all six years. Social Sciences, Humanities and Built Environment has only five reported years across the full period. Because the weights are calculated from available observations, groups with incomplete coverage may not represent the entire reference period.

These differences should not automatically be interpreted as changes in underlying research demand. The historical records span the FoR 2008 and FoR 2020 classification systems. In addition, the 2017 Pawsey-wide reporting scope differs from other observations, while the completeness of category reporting varies across years.

The normalised weights therefore provide a consistent calculation method for comparing the constructed scenarios, but they do not remove differences in classification, facility coverage or reporting completeness. Nor do they establish that research priorities or computing requirements changed by the same percentages.

4.4.3 Illustrative Distribution of Demand in 2030

The three historical allocation compositions were applied to the same selected national HPC demand projection.

The central linear model projects approximately 2.50 million kSU in 2030. Each scenario distributes this national total across the nine research-field groups using its corresponding normalised weights.

Table 11 presents the resulting distributions. Calculations use the unrounded national forecast.

Table 11: Illustrative 2030 HPC demand distribution under three historical FoR allocation scenarios, in kSU.

Research field	Earlier (2014–2020)	Recent (2021–2026)	Full period (2014–2026)
Engineering & Technology	406,401	832,908	605,405
Physical Sciences	406,985	528,466	464,339
Chemical Sciences	457,455	425,998	443,903
Earth & Environmental Sciences	760,374	334,353	564,291
Unclassified & Operational	174,599	168,853	173,130
Biological & Agricultural Sciences	117,258	123,418	120,389
Mathematics & Computing	112,832	53,320	83,184
Medical & Health Sciences	59,462	28,081	40,714
Social Sciences, Humanities & Built Environment	7,455	7,426	7,467

The choice of historical reference period produces substantial differences in the indicative distribution of national HPC demand. The national forecast remains unchanged between scenarios; only the assumed distribution differs.

Under the recent-period scenario, Engineering and Technology accounts for approximately 832,908 kSU in 2030, compared with 406,401 kSU under the earlier-period scenario. This is a difference of 426,507 kSU, even though both scenarios use the same national demand projection.

Earth and Environmental Sciences shows the opposite pattern. Its indicative allocation decreases from 760,374 kSU under the earlier-period scenario to 334,353 kSU under the recent-period scenario, a difference of 426,021 kSU.

Under the recent-period scenario, Physical Sciences accounts for approximately 528,466 kSU, while Chemical Sciences accounts for 425,998 kSU. The corresponding full-period estimates are 464,339 kSU and 443,903 kSU, respectively.

The differences arise from applying alternative historical allocation weights to the same national HPC forecast. The choice of reference period is therefore an important modelling assumption, with Engineering and Technology showing a difference of approximately 426,500 kSU between the earlier and recent scenarios.

These estimates do not represent confirmed future allocations or independently forecast research-field demand. They illustrate how a fixed national forecast would be distributed under different historical allocation assumptions. The implications for infrastructure planning are discussed in Chapter 5.

5 Discussion

5.1 Interpretation of the Main Findings

5.1.1 Growing Difference Between Demand and Allocation

The historical analysis shows that requested HPC resources grew faster than allocations. In 2026, recorded requests reached approximately 2.24 million kSU, while allocations were approximately 872,000 kSU, giving a fulfilment rate of 38.9%. The difference indicates that the allocation scheme could not meet all recorded requests.

However, the request–allocation gap does not measure total unmet national demand. Researchers may limit their requests according to expected availability, while others may not apply. The records also do not establish whether all requested resources would have been used if awarded. The gap therefore measures the difference within the reported allocation process, not the additional computing capacity Australia would need to satisfy all potential research activity.

5.1.2 Interpretation of the Forecasting Results

The rolling-origin evaluation favoured the linear trend for overall HPC demand. It produced lower forecast errors than the alternative methods, particularly the log-linear model. This supports using a constant annual increase as the central forecasting assumption, although the six evaluation years provide limited evidence about performance through 2030.

The CPU results were less decisive. Linear achieved the lowest RMSE, while log-linear achieved the lowest MAE. Their similar one-year-ahead accuracy means that the choice between constant absolute growth and proportional growth has a greater effect on the longer-term CPU projection than the evaluation results alone can resolve.

For overall HPC demand, excluding 2026 reduced the 2030 linear projection from 2.50 million to 2.29 million kSU. The full-history log-linear model projected 6.48 million kSU, despite its weaker evaluation performance. For CPU demand, the full-history log-linear projection reached approximately 2.48 billion core-hours, compared with 1.37 billion under the selected linear model. These differences show how the assumed growth pattern affects projections beyond the one-year evaluation horizon.

The statistical prediction intervals and alternative model scenarios represent different sources of uncertainty. The intervals are conditional on the selected linear models and their error assumptions. The alternative scenarios show the effects of changing the historical sample or growth specification. Neither accounts fully for uncertainty in historical conversions, future computing technology or research policy.

5.1.3 GPU and Field of Research Findings

GPU demand could not be forecast with the same level of confidence as overall HPC or CPU demand. The five-year modelling series produced only two one-year-ahead evaluation errors per model. Although the naïve benchmark had the lowest errors, this was insufficient to establish a reliable forecasting method through 2030. The GPU projections were therefore retained as exploratory results rather than estimates of future capacity requirements.

The Field of Research (FoR) scenarios identified a separate issue. Applying earlier and recent allocation shares to the same national HPC forecast produced substantially different distributions across research

fields. For Engineering and Technology, the difference between the two 2030 scenarios was approximately 426,500 kSU. Earth and Environmental Sciences received a larger indicative share under the earlier-period scenario.

These differences reflect the historical allocation periods used to construct the scenarios. They cannot establish equivalent changes in underlying research demand because the data include classification changes, reporting differences and capacity-constrained allocations.

5.2 Implications for National HPC Planning

5.2.1 Planning for Growth and Uncertainty

The central HPC forecast provides a reference for assessing future demand, but it should be considered alongside the alternative projections. The differences between linear and log-linear results are substantial by 2030, particularly for overall HPC demand. Planning based on the central forecast alone would not account for the consequences of different growth assumptions.

Forecast demand also cannot be translated directly into required infrastructure capacity. Requested kSU measures the resources sought through allocation processes, while actual capacity requirements depend on utilisation, workload characteristics and system performance. Further assessment would be needed to determine how much additional infrastructure could meet the projected requests.

5.2.2 Accounting for Changes in Computing Technology

HPC, CPU and GPU demand are expressed in different units and should not be added together. Changes in hardware performance and service-unit accounting also affect comparisons between historical demand and future computing capacity.

For example, a newer CPU system may complete the same workload using fewer core-hours, while different GPU architectures may require different processing times for comparable tasks. Consequently, growth in reported computing demand does not necessarily imply an equivalent increase in physical infrastructure requirements.

Capacity assessments should therefore combine the demand projections with information on system performance, resource utilisation, workload requirements and planned hardware changes.

5.2.3 Considering Research Field Requirements

The FoR scenarios show how the assumed distribution of national HPC demand changes when different historical allocation periods are used. The recent-period scenario places greater weight on Engineering and Technology, while the earlier-period scenario places greater weight on Earth and Environmental Sciences.

These distributions should not be used as fixed allocation targets. Historical shares reflect allocation decisions as well as research activity, and the available data do not establish future demand within individual fields. More consistent FoR-level request and usage records would be needed before developing field-specific capacity estimates.

5.3 Limitations and Future Work

5.3.1 Study Limitations

The overall HPC and CPU models were fitted using 13 annual observations from 2014–2026. Their evaluation covered six one-year-ahead forecasts, which provides limited evidence about accuracy over the four-year projection horizon. The GPU series was shorter, with five modelling observations and only two evaluation years.

A major challenge was integrating historical records from NCI, Pawsey and NCMAS. The sources differed in reporting periods, computing systems, resource definitions, units and levels of detail. Some years provided directly reported demand and allocation figures, while others required reconstruction or conversion. As a result, producing a consistent national dataset required assumptions about how observations from different sources could be combined. These differences limit comparability across years and introduce uncertainty before forecasting begins.

The selected linear models also assume that historical absolute growth continues through 2030. They do not explicitly account for future changes in research funding, technology, allocation policies or facility capacity. The sensitivity analysis showed that including the 2026 observation materially affected the fitted trends and projections.

The FoR scenarios were based on historical allocation shares rather than independently observed demand within each field. Differences between FoR 2008 and FoR 2020 classifications, together with changes in reporting scope, limit the comparability of these shares. Normalising them to 100% does not remove those differences.

5.3.2 Recommendations for Future Work

Further analysis should prioritise the following improvements:

1. **Standardise and integrate national HPC reporting.** Establish consistent annual reporting across NCI, Pawsey and NCMAS, including requested, allocated and used resources, reporting periods, computing systems and measurement units. Common definitions and documented conversion factors would reduce the need to reconstruct historical observations and improve the reliability of future demand forecasts.
2. **Validate resource conversion factors.** Consultation with facility operators could help confirm historical accounting factors, particularly where computing systems or resource definitions changed.
3. **Extend the GPU demand series.** More detailed GPU request, allocation and usage records would allow forecasting methods to be evaluated over a longer period and reduce reliance on estimated observations.
4. **Improve FoR-level demand information.** Consistent research-field request records and validated classification mappings would support direct field-level forecasting instead of distributing national projections using historical allocation shares.
5. **Update and evaluate forecasts annually.** Re-estimating the models as new observations become available would allow forecast errors, growth assumptions and sensitivity to recent years to be reassessed.

6. **Connect demand projections with infrastructure characteristics.** Information on hardware performance, utilisation, workload requirements and expected system changes would help translate projected demand into practical capacity assessments.

6 Conclusion

This project examined Australian national research HPC demand from 2014 to 2026 and developed projections through 2030 using publicly available NCI, Pawsey and NCMAS records. A major challenge was integrating historical data reported under different computing systems, measurement units and reporting practices. The analysis documented the conversions and assumptions required to construct comparable annual series.

Recorded HPC requests reached approximately 2.24 million kSU in 2026, compared with allocations of 872,288 kSU, giving a fulfilment rate of 38.9%. The difference indicates that recorded requests substantially exceeded allocations, although it does not measure all unmet research demand.

Rolling-origin evaluation supported linear trend models for the central HPC and CPU projections. By 2030, these models project approximately 2.50 million kSU of HPC demand and 1.37 billion CPU core-hours. The projections remain sensitive to the inclusion of 2026 and the assumed growth pattern. GPU projections were retained as exploratory because only five annual modelling observations were available. The FoR scenarios showed how different historical allocation distributions affect the estimated composition of future demand.

The project delivers documented historical datasets, evaluated forecasting models and demand scenarios through 2030. The results provide the Australian Academy of Science with a reference for national HPC planning, while the accompanying Quarto documentation and Git repository retain the data preparation steps, assumptions and code needed to review and update the analysis.

7 References

Australian Academy of Science. 2024. "The Future Computing Needs of the Australian Science Sector." https://www.science.org.au/.

Australian Academy of Science. 2026. *Internship Project Brief: Forecasting Demand for National Research Supercomputing*.

Australian Bureau of Statistics. 2020. "Australian and New Zealand Standard Research Classification (ANZSRC), 2020." https://www.abs.gov.au/statistics/classifications/australian-and-new-zealand-standard-research-classification-anzsrc/2020.

Hyndman, Rob J., and George Athanasopoulos. 2021. *Forecasting: Principles and Practice*. 3rd ed. OTexts. https://otexts.com/fpp3/.

Hyndman, Rob J., and Anne B. Koehler. 2006. "Another Look at Measures of Forecast Accuracy." *International Journal of Forecasting* 22 (4): 679–88. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.ijforecast.2006.03.001.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2014a. *Annual Report 2013/14*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/annual-reports/2019-07/About%20Us_Annual%20Reports_2013-14.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2014b. "NCMAS Information for Applicants." https://nci.org.au/news-events/news/ncmas-information-applicants.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2015. *Annual Report 2014/15*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/annual-reports/2019-07/About%20Us_Annual%20Reports_2014-15.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2016. *Annual Report 2015/16*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/annual-reports/2019-07/About%20Us_Annual%20Reports_2015-16.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2017. *Annual Report 2016/17*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/annual-reports/2019-07/About%20Us_Annual%20Reports_2016-17.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2018. *Annual Report 2017/18*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/annual-reports/2019-07/About%20Us_Annual%20Reports_2017-18.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2019. *Annual Report 2018/19*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/annual-reports/2019-11/NCI%20Report%202019%20web.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2020a. *Annual Report 2019/20*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/annual-reports/2021-01/NCI%20Annual%20report%202019-20%20web_final_opt2.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2020b. *NCMAS 2020 Information for Applicants*. https://nci.org.au/sites/default/files/documents/2019-10/NCMAS-2020-InformationForApplicants.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2022. *NCMAS 2023 Information for Applicants*. https://my.nci.org.au/mancini-assets/media/mas/ncmas/2023/NCMAS2023-NCMAS_2023_Info4Applicants_v5-20220830T164026AEST.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2023. *NCMAS 2024 Information for Applicants*. https://my.nci.org.au/mancini-assets/media/mas/ncmas/2024/NCMAS2024-NCMAS_2024_-_Information_for_Applicants_20231109-20231109T131740AEDT.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. 2025. *NCMAS 2026 Information for Applicants*. https://my.nci.org.au/mancini-assets/media/mas/ncmas/2026/NCMAS2026-Information_for_Applicants-20251023T122535AEDT.pdf.

National Computational Infrastructure. n.d.-a. *HPC Systems*. Accessed October 18, 2026. https://nci.org.au/infrastructure/hpc-systems.

National Computational Infrastructure. n.d.-b. "Who We Are." Accessed October 4, 2026. https://nci.org.au/.

National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme. 2021. "NCMAS 2021 Outcomes." https://my.nci.org.au/mancini/ncmas/2021/outcomes.

National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme. 2022. "NCMAS 2022 Outcomes." https://my.nci.org.au/mancini/ncmas/2022/outcomes.

National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme. 2023. "NCMAS 2023 Outcomes." https://my.nci.org.au/mancini/ncmas/2023/outcomes.

National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme. 2024. "NCMAS 2024 Outcomes." https://my.nci.org.au/mancini/ncmas/2024/outcomes.

National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme. 2025. "NCMAS 2025 Outcomes." https://my.nci.org.au/mancini/ncmas/2025/outcomes.

National Computational Merit Allocation Scheme. 2026. "NCMAS 2026 Outcomes." https://my.nci.org.au/mancini/ncmas/2026/outcomes.

Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre. 2017. *Annual Report 2016/17*. https://pawsey.org.au/wp-content/uploads/2018/10/Pawsey-Annual-Report-2016-2017.pdf.

Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre. n.d.-a. "About Pawsey." Accessed October 4, 2026. https://pawsey.org.au/.

Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre. n.d.-b. *Changes in Supercomputing Services for 2023*. Accessed October 18, 2026. https://pawsey.atlassian.net/wiki/spaces/US/pages/51927586/Changes+in+Supercomputing+Services+for+2023.

Pawsey Supercomputing Research Centre. n.d.-c. *Setonix Fires up for Researchers*. Accessed October 18, 2026. https://pawsey.org.au/setonix-fires-up-for-researchers/.

Tashman, Leonard J. 2000. "Out-of-Sample Tests of Forecasting Accuracy: An Analysis and Review." *International Journal of Forecasting* 16 (4): 437–50. https://doi.org/10.1016/S0169-2070(00)00065-0.